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ORIGINAL ARTICLE

High Prevalence and Incidence of HIV and HCV Among New Injecting Drug Users With a Large Proportion of Migrants—Is Prevention Failing?

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ABSTRACT

Objectives: The aim of this study was to assess differences in the prevalence of HIV and HCV infection and associated risk factors between new (injecting for ≤ 5 years) and long-term injectors and to estimate HIV/HCV incidence among new injectors. **Methods:** Cross-sectional study among people who inject drugs (PWID) who attended harm reduction centers in Catalonia in 2010–11. Anonymous questionnaires and oral fluid samples were collected. Poisson regression models were applied to determine the association between HIV/HCV infection and risk factors. **Results:** Of the 761 participants, 21.4% were new injectors. New injectors were younger than long-term injectors (mean age = 31.6 vs. 37.8) and were more likely to be immigrants (59.0% vs. 33.4%). HIV and HCV prevalence was 20.6% and 59.4% among new injectors, and estimated HIV and HCV incidence 8.7 and 25.1 /100 person-years, respectively. Among new injectors, HIV infection was associated with homelessness (PR = 3.10) and reporting a previous sexually transmitted infection (PR = 1.79). Reporting front/backloading (PR = 1.33) and daily injection (PR = 1.35) were risk-factors for HCV infection. For long-term injectors, HIV risk factors were: having shared syringes (PR = 1.85), having injected cocaine (PR = 1.38), reporting front/backloading (PR = 1.30) and ever having been in prison (PR = 2.03). **Conclusion:** A large proportion of PWID in Catalonia are new injectors, a subgroup with a high level of both sexual and parenteral exposure and a high incidence rate of HIV/HCV infections. It is important to improve early diagnosis of these infections among this group, in particular among migrants. To identify and address risk factors for homelessness PWID should be a priority.

KEYWORDS

Hepatitis C; HIV, injecting drug use; migrants; new injectors

Introduction

People who inject drugs (PWID) are at high risk of acquiring various blood-borne pathogens such as human immunodeficiency virus (HIV) and hepatitis C virus (HCV). While most new injectors do not become infected with HIV during the first few years, most HCV infections occur within the first 6 years of injecting drug use, and prevalence can exceed 50% after 1 year of injecting (Garten et al., 2004; Judd et al., 2005; Neaigus et al., 2007; Hagan, Pouget, Des Jarlais, & Lelutiu-Weinberger, 2008). New injectors are thus a key population for monitoring blood-borne infections as they reflect recent infections as well as may forebode changes in the epidemiology of injecting drug use.

Although the increasing availability of harm reduction programs in Catalonia (Barrio et al., 2012) has contributed to reductions in the prevalence of HIV among PWID (de la Fuente et al., 2006; EMCDDA, 2012), the prevalence of HCV remains high and exceeds 75%–80% (Huntington, Folch, Gonzalez, Meroño, Ncube, & Casabona, 2010). Data from samples of young injectors indicate ongoing transmission of HIV and HCV (Bravo et al., 2012) and are similar to those reported in Estonia, France, and Poland (Wiessing, Likatavicius, Hedrich, Guarita, van de Laar, & Vicente, 2011) and consistent with the persistent high levels of risk behaviors in this population (Hacker et al., 2005). Key risk factors for HIV and HCV infection among new injectors include high frequency of injecting/sharing, networking with high-risk

injectors, and low HIV/HCV risk perception (Miller et al., 2002; Hacker et al., 2005).

Factors associated with HIV and HCV infection among PWID have been widely studied in Spain as in other European countries, however very few studies have looked at the factors associated among the population of new injectors. To assess the profile of new injectors in comparison with long-term injectors may help to understand the recent dynamics on HIV and HCV in this population and to implement appropriate prevention strategies. Moreover, as the number of migrant injectors has increased considerably in Catalonia in recent years (Tordable Merino, Sánchez Sánchez, Santos Sanz, García Vicario, & Redondo Martín, 2010; Freixa & Meroño, 2011) and previous studies reported important differences in comparison with native injectors (Saigí et al., 2014), by considering migrant population among this analysis preventive strategies can be more easily adapted to the reality of drug consumption in our setting.

The objective of this study was to assess potential differences in the prevalence of HIV and HCV infection as well as their associated risk factors between new and long-term injectors in Catalonia. Moreover, incidence of HIV and HCV infection were estimated among the group of new injectors.

Methods

Design and participants

A cross-sectional study was carried out during 2010–2011 in the network of harm reduction centres as part of the Integrated HIV and Sexually Transmitted Infections (STI) Surveillance System in Catalonia (SIVES) (CEEIS-CAT, 2013). These centres provide needle exchange programs, outreach programs, and supervised injecting facilities. After collecting data on the number and characteristics of clients contacted by these centres in the previous year, a stratified convenience sample of PWID was selected according to the type of centre and country of origin using proportional allocation.

Individuals who reported having injected in the previous 6 months and who attended these centres were eligible to take part. Those who agreed to participate signed the informed consent document and received €24.

Data collection

Face-to-face interviews were conducted at the harm reduction centers by trained interviewers using an anonymous structured questionnaire adapted from the WHO Multy-city study on drug injecting and risk of HIV infection (WHO, 1994). The questionnaire took approximately 35 minutes to complete and was translated into

Spanish, Romanian, Russian, English, and French and included questions on sociodemographic characteristics (country of origin, age, sex, education level, occupational status, place of residence, treatment for drug addiction), drug use (time since first injection, age at first injection, frequency of injection, sharing of syringes and/or other injecting paraphernalia such as water containers, spoons and filters, drugs used), sexual practices (commercial sex work, use of condoms with steady and casual partners), knowledge of HIV and HCV status, and previous history of STI. Most questions on behavior referred to the preceding 6 months. For the purpose of the analysis, “new” injectors were defined as those who had been injecting for 5 years or less, while “long-term” injectors were those who had been injecting for more than 5 years. In response to the question, “What is your country of origin?”, individuals who did not indicate that they were from Spain were classified as immigrants. Undiagnosed HIV and/or HCV infection was defined as a positive biological test result from any participant self-reporting as “negative” or who had never been tested.

Oral fluid samples were also taken anonymously to determine the prevalence of HIV and HCV infection. Anti-HIV antibodies were detected in oral fluid using Genscreen HIV-1/2 Version 2.0 assay from Bio-Rad (sensitivity = 98.5%; specificity = 100%) (Chohan et al., 2001); anti-HCV antibodies were detected using HCV 3.0 SAve ELISA (sensitivity = 86.7%; specificity = 100%) (Judd et al., 2003). Questionnaires and oral fluid samples were linked using an anonymous numerical code.

Statistical analysis

Proportions were compared between new and long-term injectors using the Pearson χ^2 and the Fisher exact tests. For quantitative variables, means were compared using the *t* test after verification of the equality of variances using the Levene test.

HIV and HCV incidence among new injectors was estimated using the following assumptions: (1) all of them were HIV and HCV seronegative when they began injecting; (2) they became infected at the midpoint between beginning to inject and the time of oral fluid sample collection; (3) no HIV seropositives were lost to AIDS or for other reasons among the new injectors. The time at risk for HIV/HCV seronegative new injectors was the total time from first injection to the time of the interview. The estimated HIV and HCV incidence rate was the number of HIV and HCV seropositive new injectors divided by the sum of the time at risk for the HIV and HCV seropositive new injectors and the time at risk for the HIV seronegative new injectors (Uusküla et al., 2008).

Univariate and Poisson regression models with robust variance were applied to determine the association between HIV and HCV infection and sociodemographic

and behavioral characteristics among new and long-term injectors (Barros & Hirakata, 2003). Variables with a significance level <0.10 in the univariate analysis were included in the multivariate analysis, after adjusting for age, gender, years of injection and country of origin, and the Prevalence Ratio (PR) with its respective 95%CI was calculated. Final multivariate models were derived using stepwise backward elimination process. Statistical significance was set at $P < 0.05$. The analyses were performed using SPSS version 17.0.

Results

Of the 761 PWID enrolled in the study, 21.4% reported injecting drugs for 5 years or less before the interview. Table 1 shows the main sociodemographic characteristics, sexual practices, and drug use behaviors of the participants by duration of injection.

New injectors were younger than long-term injectors (mean age = 31.6 vs. 37.8) and reported a higher level of education (16.8% vs. 25.2% primary education or less). In addition, they were more likely to be immigrants (59.0% vs. 33.4%), mainly from Eastern European countries (62.1% and 54.5%, respectively). More long-term injectors had ever been in prison (71.5% vs. 49.7%) and were currently in treatment for drug use (57.8% vs. 40.4%). Fewer new injectors had begun injecting at very young ages (3.7% vs. 42.5% <18 years) or reported ever sharing syringes (33.5% vs. 56.1%), although the proportion who reported daily injection was higher among new injectors (55.3% vs. 44.7%) (Table 1).

Regarding injecting and sexual risk practices during the last 6 months, no differences were found between new and long-term injectors except that the prevalence of sharing injecting paraphernalia other than syringes and needles during the last 6 months was higher among new injectors (55.9% vs. 47.2%). The lifetime prevalence of self-reported STI was similar between long-term (14.0%) and new injectors (17.8%). The proportion of ever tested for HIV was lower among new injectors (90.7% and 95.9%, respectively), as well as the proportion of ever tested for HCV (83.0% and 96.4%, respectively) (Table 1).

The prevalence of HIV and HCV infection in the total sample was 33.2% (95%CI, 29.8–36.5) and 72.0% (95%CI, 68.8–75.2), respectively. Figure 1 shows the prevalence of HIV and HCV infection according to injection history. HCV prevalence is significantly associated with time since first injection, increasing from 59.4% (95%CI, 51.8–67.0) in the new injectors increasing to 77.1% (95%CI, 73.4–80.9) in those with an injection history of more than 10 years. The prevalence of HIV was already high among new injectors (20.6%; 95%CI, 14.4–26.9) and those with

Table 1. Sociodemographic, sexual, and drug use behaviors of new and long-term injectors.

	New N = 161%	Long-term N = 593%	p
Median age (SD)	31.6 (7.5)	37.8 (7.1)	$<.0001$
Immigrants	59.0	33.4	$<.0001$
Female	21.1	16.2	NS
Education level: primary or less	16.8	25.2	.026
Homeless ¹	22.4	16.9	NS
Living alone ¹	31.1	29.8	NS
Receiving a retirement pension/incapacity benefit/social fund	15.5	34.9	$<.0001$
Main source of income: illegal	55.7	45.9	.029
Ever in prison	49.7	71.5	$<.0001$
Currently in treatment (to reduce or stop injecting)	40.4	57.8	$<.0001$
Age at first injection: <18 years	3.7	42.5	$<.0001$
Injection of cocaine ¹	55.9	65.7	.022
Injection of heroin ¹	80.7	78.5	NS
Injection of speedball ¹	54.7	56.3	NS
Frequency of injection: daily ¹	55.3	44.7	.017
Ever sharing syringes	33.5	56.1	$<.0001$
Accepted used syringes ¹	14.3	12.0	NS
Passing on used syringes ¹	17.4	13.5	NS
Front/backloading ¹	13.9	12.5	NS
Sharing other injecting equipment ¹	55.9	47.2	.05
Steady sexual partner ¹	48.4	48.6	NS
Unprotected sexual intercourse (steady partner) ^{1,2}	80.8	69.9	NS
IDU steady sexual partner ^{1,2}	43.6	42.0	NS
HIV-positive steady sexual partner ^{1,2}	10.3	18.5	NS
Casual sexual partner ¹	39.8	34.4	NS
Unprotected sexual intercourse (casual partner) ^{1,3}	39.7	32.7	NS
Commercial sex ¹	7.5	4.7	NS
Men who had sex with men (last 5 years)	4.3	3.5	NS
History of sexually transmitted infections	17.8	14.0	NS
Ever tested for HIV	90.7	95.9	.008
Ever tested for HCV	83.0	96.4	$<.0001$

¹Last 6 months

²Among those with steady partners

³Among those with casual partners

⁴NS = Nonsignificant

an injection history of 5–10 years (20.4%; 95%CI, 12.9–27.8) while even much higher among participants with an injection history of more than 10 years (40.5%; 95%CI, 36.1–44.9).

The estimated HIV incidence among new injectors was 8.71/100 person-years at risk, and the HCV incidence was 25.06/100 person-years.

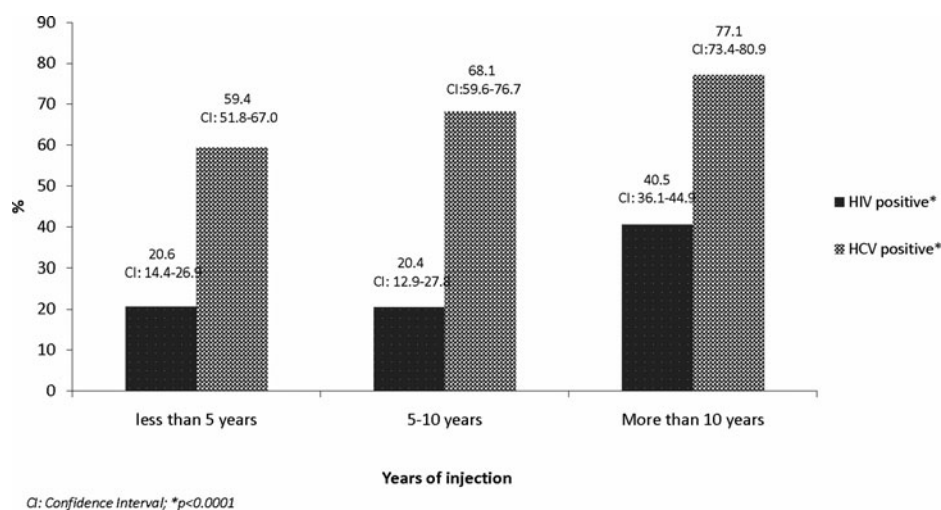


Figure 1. HIV and HCV prevalence by duration of injection.

More new injectors than long-term injectors were unaware of their HIV infection (48.5% vs. 20.3%; $p < .0001$) and of their HCV positive antibody status at the time of the interview (50.5% vs. 20.2%; $p < .0001$). Among new injectors, unawareness of HIV and HCV infection was higher among migrants (71.4% and 57.4%, respectively), although differences were not statistically significant. Among long-term injectors, the proportion of unaware HIV and HCV infections among migrants (43.2% and 25.6%, respectively) were higher than among native ($p < .05$) (Figure 2).

The univariate results of the variables associated with HIV and HCV seroprevalence are shown in Table 2. Among both new and long-term injectors, risk factors for HIV infection were being born in Spain, ever having shared syringes, having injected cocaine, having accepted used syringes and reporting front/backloading during the last 6 months, ever having been in prison and reporting a previous STI. Additional factors associated with HIV infection among new injectors were reporting an

illegal source of income, being homeless, injection of speedball and commercial sex in the last 6 months. No common HCV risk factors for both new and long-term injectors emerged at univariate level. Among new injectors, HCV infection was associated with being a migrant, ever having shared syringes, reporting daily injection and front/backloading during the last 6 months, and reporting a previous STI. Ever having shared syringes was almost significant as the only risk factor for HCV among long-term injectors.

In the adjusted multivariate models, risk factors for HIV infection among new injectors were being homeless (PR = 3.10) and reporting a previous STI (PR = 1.79). In contrast, having reported unprotected sex with steady partners during the last 6 months was predictive for being HIV-negative (PR = 0.42). On the other hand, reporting front/backloading in the last 6 months (PR = 1.33) and daily injection (PR = 1.35) were risk factors for HCV infection in the multivariate analysis for new injectors (Table 3).

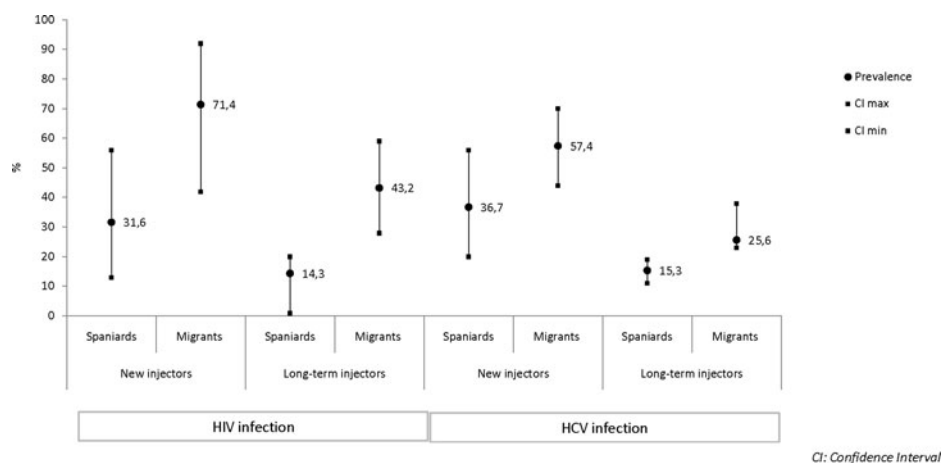


Figure 2. Unknown HIV and HCV infections among new and long-term injectors by country of origin.

Table 2. Univariate associations between sociodemographic characteristics, sexual and drug use behaviors, and self-reported sexually transmitted infections for new and long-term injectors.

	New injectors						Long-term injectors					
	HIV-positive			HCV-positive			HIV-positive			HCV-positive		
	PR	95% CI	<i>p</i>	PR	95% CI	<i>p</i>	PR	95% CI	<i>p</i>	PR	95% CI	<i>p</i>
Born in Spain	1.93	1.05–3.57	.036	0.69	0.52–0.92	.012	1.84	1.39–2.42	<.0001	1.03	0.93–1.14	.571
More than 30 years old	1.26	0.68–2.33	.464	1.12	0.87–1.45	.384	2.51	1.56–4.03	<.0001	1.16	0.99–1.34	.061
Female	1.61	0.85–3.05	.143	1.05	0.78–1.42	.744	1.17	0.90–1.52	.246	0.93	0.81–1.06	.288
In treatment (last 12 months)	1.08	0.58–1.99	.813	0.93	0.71–1.22	.605	1.22	0.97–1.52	.083	1.06	0.97–1.17	.195
Primary education or less	0.39	0.16–0.92	.032	0.70	0.48–1.03	.069	0.83	0.61–1.13	.237	1.06	0.90–1.25	.489
Main source of income: illegal ¹	2.51	1.21–5.22	.013	1.09	0.84–1.41	.535	0.90	0.72–1.12	.348	0.93	0.84–1.02	.115
Homeless ¹	3.36	1.90–5.95	<.0001	1.21	0.92–1.58	.174	1.08	0.82–1.42	.581	0.85	0.73–0.99	.036
Injection of cocaine ¹	2.13	1.06–4.28	.034	0.89	0.69–1.14	.354	1.49	1.16–1.92	.002	0.92	0.84–1.01	.090
Injection of heroin ¹	0.75	0.38–1.50	.418	0.96	0.70–1.32	.806	0.84	0.66–1.07	.170	0.90	0.82–0.99	.038
Injection of speedball ¹	2.24	1.11–4.51	.024	1.26	0.96–1.64	.092	1.17	0.94–1.46	.148	1.00	0.91–1.09	.960
Daily injection ¹	1.88	0.96–3.69	.066	1.40	1.06–1.85	.017	0.93	0.75–1.16	.531	1.06	0.97–1.17	.182
Age at first injection <18 years	0.80	0.13–4.93	.812	1.43	0.97–2.09	.069	1.50	1.21–1.85	<.0001	1.03	0.94–1.13	.569
Having shared syringes	2.09	1.15–3.80	.016	1.31	1.02–1.68	.033	2.41	1.85–3.14	<.0001	1.10	1.00–1.21	.053
Accepted used syringes ¹	2.23	1.19–4.18	.012	1.12	0.80–1.55	.512	1.64	1.29–2.09	<.0001	1.07	0.94–1.21	.311
Sharing other injecting equipment ¹	1.83	0.93–3.60	.077	1.20	0.92–1.56	.187	1.01	0.82–1.25	.921	0.94	0.86–1.04	.220
Front/backloading ¹	3.07	1.74–5.41	<.0001	1.47	1.15–1.89	.002	1.56	1.21–2.00	.001	1.01	0.88–1.16	.866
Unprotected sex (steady partner) ¹	0.41	0.19–0.90	.025	0.94	0.72–1.23	.647	0.57	0.44–0.75	<.0001	0.97	0.88–1.07	.560
Unprotected sex (casual partner) ¹	0.35	0.09–1.35	.127	0.70	0.44–1.11	.132	0.63	0.41–0.98	.042	1.07	0.94–1.22	.275
Commercial sex ¹	2.74	1.42–5.31	.003	1.29	0.91–1.84	.158	0.98	0.59–1.63	.930	0.89	0.69–1.16	.395
Having been in prison	2.36	1.20–4.63	.013	1.29	1.00–1.68	.053	2.38	1.70–3.32	<.0001	1.08	0.97–1.20	.175
Sexually transmitted infections (ever)	2.29	1.26–4.15	.007	1.31	1.01–1.71	.040	1.60	1.27–2.03	<.0001	0.97	0.84–1.11	.635

¹ Last 6 months; CI: Confidence Interval; PR: Prevalence Ratio.**Table 3.** Risk factors for HIV and HCV infections. Poisson regression models*.

	PR	95% CI	<i>p</i>
New injectors			
HIV infection			
Homeless ¹	3.10	1.80–5.33	<.001
Unprotected sex (steady partner) ¹	0.42	0.21–0.82	.012
Sexually transmitted infections (ever)	1.79	1.10–2.90	.018
HCV infection			
Front–backloading ¹	1.33	1.01–1.76	.043
Daily injection ¹	1.35	1.20–1.79	.036
Long-term injectors			
HIV infection			
Injection of cocaine ¹	1.38	1.09–1.76	.009
Having shared syringes (ever)	1.85	1.43–2.40	<.001
Frontbackloading ¹	1.30	1.06–1.60	.012
In prison (ever)	2.03	1.45–2.85	<.001
Unprotected sex (steady partner) ¹	0.63	0.49–0.82	<.001
Unprotected sex (casual partner) ¹	0.62	0.40–0.94	.025
HCV infection			
Homeless ¹	0.84	0.72–0.97	<.001

¹ Last 6 months; * After adjusting for age, country of origin, gender and years of injection
PR, prevalence ratio; CI: Confidence Interval

For long-term injectors (Table 3), risk factors for HIV at multivariate level were ever having shared syringes (PR = 1.85), having injected cocaine (PR = 1.38) and reporting front/backloading (PR = 1.30) during the last 6 months and ever having been in prison (PR = 2.03). Being homeless was negatively associated with HCV infection among long-term injectors (PR = 0.84).

Discussion

The high HIV and HCV prevalence found in this study among PWID within the first 5 years of injecting in Catalonia emphasizes the importance of strengthening early prevention interventions targeting new injectors. The estimated HCV incidence based on prevalence data among this group (25.06/100 person-years) confirms that most new infections occurred very soon after initiation of injection, consistent with previous studies (Maher, Li, Jalaludin, Chant, & Kaldor, 2007; Neaigus et al., 2007). This is similar to previous findings in Spain among

new injectors younger than 30 years old (Bravo et al., 2012). Although the estimated HIV incidence indicates ongoing and high levels of HIV transmission among new injectors (8.71/100 person-years), it is confirmed that HIV does not spread as efficiently as HCV in this group.

Migrants represent a higher proportion of the new IDUs population in Catalonia, as compared to long-term IDUs, suggesting an increased influx of migrants among this population as reported over the last years in Athens (Paraskevis et al., 2013, Sypsa et al., 2015), but also a decrease in the autochthonous population who start using injected drugs. These findings highlight the need for further research on the influence of migration on drug using patterns and determinants of the behaviors so that drug services can remain responsive to their needs. When injection drug use and mobility overlap, risk for HIV transmission to other populations and geographic areas increases (Rachlis et al., 2007; Strathdee et al., 2008; Friedman, Rossi, Braine, 2009) suggesting that policies in Europe need to be multifaceted, recognizing the specific needs of migrant populations and working to increase their access to health services and if possible prevent their transition to injection drug use.

Although a higher percentage of long-term injectors had shared needles at some time during their life, probably due to the effect of cumulative risk over time, no differences emerged between the groups when asked about risk behaviors in the last 6 months, except for the practice of indirect sharing, in which prevalence was higher among new injectors. Earlier studies have suggested a higher frequency of risk behaviors for HIV and HCV infection among new injectors than among more experienced users (Becker Buxton et al., 2004; Hacker et al., 2005).

Factors associated with young age itself, such as impulsivity and lower perception of risk may contribute to the elevated levels of risk practices among new injectors (Bailey et al., 2007). On the other hand, differences between the contextual environments of new and long-term injectors (e.g., inject in public spaces, fewer socioeconomic resources, unstable housing) may contribute to risky behaviors by recent initiates into injection (Paraskevis et al., 2013). Future studies in Catalonia will be necessary to better characterize some of the behavioral characteristics of new injectors.

Multivariate analysis revealed differences in the risk of HIV and/or HCV infection among new and long-term injectors. Firstly, the risk of HCV infection among new injectors was higher in those who had practiced front/backloading during the previous 6 months. Although many injectors recognized the risk

of viral transmission associated with sharing needles and syringes, there is relatively little understanding of how HIV/HCV transmission is associated with sharing injection paraphernalia (Thiede et al., 2007). This explains in part why, while syringe sharing has declined among PWID since the introduction of harm-reduction programs, shared use of drug preparation equipment has persisted (De la Fuente et al., 2006; Hagan et al., 2010). The association between practices of sharing injection equipment indirectly and these infections has also been reported previously at national and international level (Quan et al., 2009; Pouget, Hagan, & Des Jarlais, 2012). Although indirect sharing was also associated with HIV infection among long-term injectors, the main risk factors for HIV among this group were having ever shared syringes and having ever been in prison, both time dependent variables which reflect an effect of cumulative exposure. The delay in the implementation of Needle Exchange Programs in Catalonia, in particular in prisons, in which it was not fully implemented until 2006, could also explain in part the association of being in prison a HIV infection among this population.

Homelessness facilitates the acquisition of risk behaviors and differences in health status among injectors (Reyes et al., 2005). In fact, numerous studies have shown high HIV prevalence among homeless injectors (Magura, Nwakeze, Rosenblum, & Joseph, 2000; Topp, Iversen, Baldry, & Maher, 2013). In the present study, being homeless during the previous 6 months was significantly associated with HIV infection among new injectors. In contrast, homeless long-term injectors presented a lower probability of being HIV positive suggesting an interaction between homelessness and length of injecting career. The worse health conditions of people infected for a longer period of time together with the higher proportion receiving a retirement pension or incapacity benefit (37.3% among HCV-positive long-term injectors) might in part explain these differences. Having had an STI was significantly associated with HIV infection among new injectors, thus highlighting the current importance of sexual transmission of HIV in this group, as reported elsewhere (Folch et al., 2013). In fact, a higher prevalence of life-time STI was expected among long-term injectors due to the accumulate risk over time. However, the similar prevalences observed among both groups are suggesting a higher incidence in the new injectors.

The association between cocaine injecting and HIV among long-term injectors had been previously described in Catalonia (Huntington et al., 2010), and it could be related to the frequency of injecting or due to increased risk behaviors among those who use cocaine, such as

sharing syringes. On the other hand, frequency of injection was associated with HCV among new injectors, consistent with previous studies among this population (Judd et al., 2005).

Finally, the association between use of condoms and HIV infection among both new and long-term injectors could be explained by the implementation of measures among HIV-infected people to prevent transmission of the virus to their partners.

Approximately half of the sample of new injectors who were HIV- and/or HCV-positive did not know they were infected, thus highlighting the importance of improving early diagnosis of these infections in this group so that appropriate treatment can be provided and behavior changed. Undiagnosed infections were extremely high among the group of migrant injectors, in particular among the new injectors (71.4% for HIV and 57.4% for HCV), suggesting lower access of migrants to HIV/HCV testing. Recent observations indicate that migrants generally have limited access to health care services and harm reduction services (Rachlis et al., 2007; Harocopos, Goldsamt, Kobrak, Jost, & Clatts, 2009; Saigí et al., 2014). In this sense, it is necessary to find innovative ways of reaching this population adapted to different circumstances according to local conditions (Dietze et al., 2012), including rapid tests to detect both HIV and HCV (Drobnik, Judd, Banach, Egger, Konty, & Rude, 2011), the promotion of prevention activities through social networks, peer work (Smyrnov, Broadhead, Datsenko, & Matiyash, 2012), mobile health outreach for homeless population on the streets or in shelters or syringe dispensing machines (Jones, Pickering, Sumnall, McVeigh, J & Bellis, 2010).

This study is subject to the following limitations. First, the sample was representative of those injectors who attend Catalan harm reduction centres, since assignment to strata was proportional to the volume of visits in each centre and to the percentage of individuals in each centre by country of birth, and since the sample selection was random within the centres. We have no information on the injectors that were not approached by these centres. Second, the validity of data could be questioned, since the prevalence of some risk behaviors may have been underestimated, even though data collectors attempted to create an anonymous atmosphere for the interviews and used simple and understandable language, however it is not obvious that this bias would be different between new and long-term injectors. Furthermore, research has demonstrated that self-reported risk behaviors can be valid and may not be strongly affected by social desirability bias (Goldstein, Friedman, Neaigus, Jose, Ildefonso, & Curtis, 1995). Caution must be taken with regard to the estimated HIV/HCV incidences because the actual date of infection

is unknown. Moreover, it was not possible to know how many individuals had cleared the virus because we did not perform the determination of the viral RNA in sera. No risk factors for HCV were found among long-term injectors probably due to the limitation of current variables associated with an infection that occurred a long time ago. On the other hand, the study only collected HCV antibodies, so current infection cannot be determined. Finally, cross-sectional surveys do not allow for determination of the sequence of cause and effect which complicates interpretation of associations.

In conclusion, vulnerable populations like PWID are not homogeneous. New injectors in Catalonia, a subgroup with large proportion of migrants, present a high level of both sexual and parenteral exposure and a high incidence rate of HIV and HCV infections, therefore acting as a core group with a high basic reproductive number. Develop and strengthen early intervention initiatives to reduce the number of at risk individuals and to provide education early in injecting careers would be needed. Such interventions should be specifically focused on migrant, adapting prevention messages to their social and cultural background. Furthermore, identifying and addressing risk factors for homelessness among new injectors should be a priority. Finally, we emphasize the critical importance of improving access to HIV and HCV testing among new injectors, including outreach services to reach injectors at higher risk of these infections who may be hidden or marginalized and not in touch with traditional healthcare services.

Glossary

Harm reduction: Policies, programmes, and approaches that seek to reduce the harmful health, social, and economic consequences associated with the use of psychoactive substances

HCV: Hepatitis C virus

HIV: Human immunodeficiency virus

Incidence: The number of new cases which develop over a defined time period in a defined population at risk, divided by the number of people in that population at risk.

Prevalence rate: The number of existing cases in a defined population at a given point in time or over a defined time period, divided by the number of people in that population.

PWID: People who inject drugs

STI: Sexually transmitted infections

Declaration of interest

The Ethics Committee of Hospital Universitari Germans Trias i Pujol approved the study. The authors report no conflicts of interest. The authors alone are responsible for the content and writing of the article.

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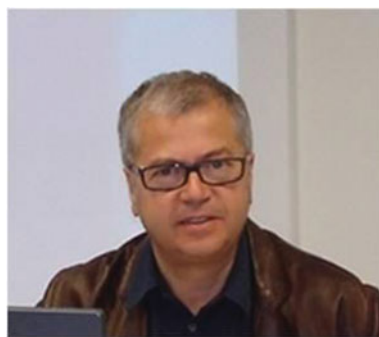
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